Locating Hispanic Americans, 1900-2020

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Abstract

This study examines Hispanic Americans' residential settlement patterns nationwide in the last 120 years. Drawing on newly available neighborhood data for the whole country as early as 1900, it documents the direction and timing of changes in two aspects of their location. First, it charts Hispanics' transition from a predominantly rural population to majority metropolitan by 1930 and also their growing presence in all regions of the U.S. while still maintaining a predominance in the West and Texas. Second, it provides the first evidence of the long-term trajectory of their segregation from whites in the metropolitan areas where they were settling. As shown by studies of more recent decades, Hispanics were never as segregated as African Americans. Nonetheless, similar to African Americans, their segregation from whites increased to high levels through the middle of the century, followed by slow decline. For both groups metropolitan segregation was driven mainly by segregation among central city neighborhoods prior to the 1940s. But new forms of segregation – a growing city/suburb divide and increasing segregation among suburban places – have become the largest contributors to segregation today.

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Locating Hispanic Americans, 1900-2020

This is a study of the residential patterns of Hispanic Americans in the one hundred twenty years since 1900. Although there is considerable historical evidence on the Hispanic experience in the United States, this is the first systematic longitudinal analysis at a national scale reporting where these Americans lived and specifically their residential segregation from the non-Hispanic white majority. Much similar research has been conducted since 1980, when the U.S. decennial census began to release neighborhood-level data that enumerated Hispanics separately from other groups. The current study aggregates newly available microdata extending back to 1900 at the neighborhood scale to examine two aspects of their locational change: 1) their movement to urban areas and to non-traditional locations beyond the Southwest, and 2) their evolving segregation from whites within metropolitan areas.

Because past research on segregation, especially prior to 1980, focused on African Americans, we use the Black experience as a point of comparison to the Hispanic case. There are broad similarities between the two in terms of both urbanization and segregation. There was a large Black presence in the U.S. at the time of the Civil War, but they were highly concentrated as a slave population in rural areas of the South. Since then their numbers have grown mostly through fertility, although immigration began to play a more prominent role as the years passed. Their first major locational shift occurred immediately following the Civil War, when many former slaves migrated from rural areas to cities in the South (Logan and Martinez 2018). Then, around the time of the First World War and in response to wartime labor demand, this rural-urban migration became an exodus from the South to urban areas in the North and West. This Great Migration intensified considerably after the 1930s and reached its highest volume after World War II (Boustan 2017). As a result, by 1980 most African Americans were urban

residents, and most major metropolitan areas throughout the United States had a considerable Black population. Black urbanization was accompanied by very high levels of residential segregation, a concentration in large central city ghettos by 1940, and exclusion from the growing suburban periphery in the early postwar period. Segregation reached its peak in the 1970s, however. As African Americans began to suburbanize on a large scale, segregation across city neighborhoods began a slow decline, while segregation within suburbia was more persistent (Carlson et al 2023).

The Hispanic population within the U.S. in the 19th Century was much smaller, and it originated in Texas and other formerly Mexican territories that were annexed by the U.S. in 1849. In the 20th Century, however, it grew through international migration, first from Mexico, later from Puerto Rico, and even later from Cuba (Bean and Tienda 1987), eventually surpassing the size of the Black population. One parallel to the African American experience is Hispanics' transition from a largely rural presence in a specific region of the country to an increasingly urban profile in a much wider range of places. There is also a parallel in these groups' settlement patterns in the urban areas to which they were moving. Both experienced segregation in city neighborhoods early in the 1900s, and both became more highly segregated over time, although segregation was never as high for Hispanics as it was for African Americans (Telles and Ortiz 2008).

This general outline of Hispanic settlement patterns is familiar due to the combined efforts of historians, demographers, and other social scientists. We can now offer more detailed answers to several remaining questions. First, how were Hispanics situated in relation to the urban transition that was still in progress in the United States in the early 1900s? Originally a largely rural population, when and where did they participate in the rapid growth of new

metropolitan centers in Southern California and Texas? When did they appear in large numbers outside the Southwest, in places like Chicago and New York? A second set of questions concerns their experience as urban residents, specifically the formation of Hispanic neighborhoods. When and where did "barriozation" (Camarillo 1979) emerge as a predominant residential pattern, and to what extent were Hispanics segregated from the majority population? Did Hispanic-white segregation intensify through the 1970s, as it did for African Americans? Were Hispanics as excluded from the suburbs as Blacks were in the early postwar years, and did they later move to the suburbs in equally large numbers? Did their settlement pattern in the suburbs reproduce their segregation across city neighborhoods?

We address these questions here through analysis of a consistent time series of neighborhood-level data beginning in 1900. We begin by reviewing past research, first on Hispanics' growth and regional and rural-urban location, and then on their neighborhood location in urban areas.

Regional and rural/urban redistribution

Mexico ceded much of California and the Southwest to the United States through the Treaty of Guadalupe Hidalgo in 1847. Gratton and Guttman (2000) have used census microdata samples to estimate the Mexican population at that time to be about 100,000. Immigration from Mexico for the next five decades was modest, as the main population movements were within Mexico, either toward Mexico City or in the northern part of the country closer to the border, stimulated by development of railroads and investments in mining and smelting (Fernandez and Gonzalez 2003). The situation was changing by 1900, when Gratton and Guttman estimated that the Mexican population in the U.S. had reached about 500,000, then jumped to near 800,000 by 1910 and 1.3 million in 1920. Most of this growth was due to international migration. In

1920, close to 80% of Hispanics in the U.S. were of Mexican origin and about 9% from Spain, with smaller shares from Cuba and Puerto Rico. After 1920, due to intense migration from Puerto Rico that was directed mainly to New York City and the Northeast, the Puerto Rican share of Hispanics became substantial, growing from 1.6% in 1920 to 10.1% by 1950 and 18.2% in 1970. Immigration from Cuba surged after the Cuban Revolution, and Cubans jumped from around 3% of the Hispanic population in the 1920-1960 period to 7.2% in 1970 (Gratton and Guttman 2000, Table 3).

Nevertheless, Mexico remained the paramount source of Hispanic growth throughout the century, still comprising 63.2% of Hispanics in 1970. U.S. policy towards Mexican immigration shifted over time, with clear effects on their population movements. In the 1910-1930 period, Mexicans were sought as manual laborers, especially for commercial agriculture in California, agriculture and cattle production in Texas, and railroad construction and maintenance throughout the Southwest (Telles and Ortiz 2008). In these two decades, "roughly 10% of Mexico's population immigrated to the United States" (2008, p. 81). Then, as the Great Depression hit, there were strong pressures for Mexicans to be repatriated or deported. Many were affected. Balderrama and Rodriguez (1995) asserted that up to one-third of the Mexicans in the U.S. had been repatriated, voluntarily or involuntarily, in the 1930s. Hoffman (1974) reported that over 400,000 Mexican aliens and their children left the country in the early 1930s. Taylor (1933/1934) used Mexican government statistics to calculate a smaller net movement during 1930-1933, when he estimates 306,000 were repatriated while 36,000 immigrated to the U.S. But repatriation, while large in scale, was short-lived, peaking in 1931 and subsiding quickly. Hence Hoffman (1974, p. 118) argued that the exodus had not reduced Texas's Spanish-speaking population by the end of that decade.

As the Hispanic population grew, it became more urban. The original Mexican Southwest was largely rural and agricultural. One major stimulus for immigration in the early 1900s was the expansion of commercial agriculture in California and elsewhere, which also favored rural location. Valdes (2000) notes that cotton production was the major employer in the area from Texas to California, and sugar beet farming in the northern Great Plains and Midwest also employed many Mexican immigrants. As seasonal workers, Mexican immigrants typically lived in small towns or were housed near the fields. However, Valdes also notes that while some of them spent the winters in rural *colonias*, others moved seasonally to cities where they likely to be enumerated by the census as urban dwellers. Another important employer was railroad companies who used Mexicans as seasonal track maintenance workers, often housed in cities in bunkhouses or boxcars during the winters (Valdes 2000, p. 28). In 1903 the Santa Fe Railroad brought track workers to Kansas, where neighborhoods that were originally formed as railroad camps evolved into Mexican neighborhoods. By 1916 Mexicans were being recruited for railroad work in Chicago, where they lived on the Near West Side. Steel mills in South Chicago, East Chicago and Gary were employing large numbers of Mexicans, first as strikebreakers in 1919, and then as more permanent workers. Growing demand for labor during World War II favored immigration to urban areas (Telles and Ortiz 2008).

These developments resulted in a rapid expansion of urban location (Longmore and Hitt 1943). The largest initial urban concentrations were in Los Angeles, San Antonio, and El Paso. Farther from the border, Chicago had the fourth largest urban Mexican population, followed by Detroit, where Mexicans worked in automobile and related industries (Valdes 2000, p. 42). The influx of Puerto Ricans in the 1940s and 1950s then established New York City as a major Hispanic center. And political immigration in the 1950s and the aftermath of the Cuban

Revolution in the 1960-1980 decades spurred the growth of Miami's Hispanic population. Hence urbanization went hand in hand with the regional redistribution of Hispanics throughout the 20th Century. By 1930, 51% of the Mexican population in the U.S. was urban according to Longmore and Hitt (1943, p. 143). By 1960, the share of Mexican Americans living in metropolitan areas had reached above 70% and was still climbing (Bean and Tienda 1987).

The existing literature, while fragmentary, establishes the general contours of these developments. The main unanswered questions about Hispanic population growth, urbanization, and regional spread are about the details of numbers, timing, and location.

Segregation in urban areas

We know less about segregation of Hispanics before 1980. One of the most comprehensive early studies was reported by Massey (1981) for a set of eight large urbanized areas in 1970. Like studies of Black-white segregation in that era, he relied mainly on the Index of Dissimilarity, which is a measure of unevenness of the distribution of Blacks and whites across neighborhoods. Ranging between 0 and 1, values above .60 are generally viewed as "very high," while those around .50 or below are viewed as "moderate." Massey distinguished between Mexicans, Cuban, and Puerto Ricans. Because he used birthplace and parentage as indicators of being "Spanish American," his analysis includes only first and second-generation Americans. He found that all three Hispanic groups were less segregated from whites than were African Americans. They were also less likely to be living in central cities (i.e., less excluded from suburban locations). In the areas he studied, Blacks were nearly three times as concentrated in central cities as were whites, Puerto Ricans were about twice as concentrated, and both Mexicans and Cubans were about 1.8 times as concentrated. Hispanics could be described as moderately segregated in these respects, in contrast to more highly segregated Blacks.

Massey and Denton (1989) updated these findings using the 1980 census for a more inclusive set of metropolitan areas, including the ten metropolitan regions in which both groups had the most residents. In these metros, segregation from whites averaged .52 for Mexicans, .58 for Cubans, and .67 for Puerto Ricans. They described Mexicans, who comprised by far the largest share of Hispanics, as moderately segregated, while Puerto Rican and Cuban segregation – despite being lower than African American segregation – was in or near the "very high" range. It was highest for Puerto Ricans in New York, a considerable shae of whom identified or were perceived as black (see also Kantrowitz 1973).

Systematic measurement of Hispanic segregation from whites prior to 1970 is scarce. One exception is Taeuber and Taeuber (1964), who studied Chicago in 1930 and 1960 using census data for the city's 75 community areas. They calculated the Index of Dissimilarity (D) between Mexicans and "native whites of native parentage," a category that omits foreign stock whites. This index was very high in 1930, with a value of .71, much higher than they found for more recent predominantly immigrant white ethnic groups. However, by 1960 it had declined to .54, more comparable to the findings reported above for 1970 and 1980. They also measured Puerto Rican segregation in Chicago in the same way in 1960, reporting a very high value of .67, again consistent with later findings for New York.

These three early studies defined whites and Hispanics in different ways, and they differed in whether their measures included third and later generation group members. They all concluded that Hispanics were moderately to highly residentially segregated from whites. The fragmentary evidence of very high levels of segregation in 1930 suggests that Hispanic-white separation may have been declining when it began to be measured systematically by 1960-1980.

This implication of high segregation early in the 20th Century is consistent with the qualitative accounts about the period. Bogardus (1930, p. 79) carried out extensive studies of the situation in Southern California. He noted that "Mexicans live in colonies. Because of low economic status, they congregate in the less desirable and low sections of a city, beyond the railroad tracks, and in other places where average Americans will not live." In addition, they often experienced vocal opposition to efforts to move into better neighborhoods. More recently, Camarillo (1979) has described the process of "barriozation" in the 1900-1930 decades. Historic "pueblo core areas," he reported, were being supplemented with newer barrios, which "sometimes resulted from the establishment of labor camps or railroad labor colonies and from the suburbanization of Chicano communities" (p. 199). An example is Los Angeles, where the original settlement area near the central business district included many house courts, hotels, boarding houses, and self-built shanties in close proximity to places of work. As these began to be displaced by commercial uses after 1910, new enclaves were established in East Los Angeles. And as industries began to relocate east and south of the downtown area, the new eastside barrios became overcrowded. By 1920, he estimated that only 40% of the Mexican population lived in the old central plaza *barrios*, now with a second major concentration in East Los Angeles, followed by a pattern of increasing movement into suburban locations during the 1920s.

Vargas (2005) emphasizes the processes of housing discrimination that fueled *barrio* growth in Los Angeles in the 1930s and 1940s, as the Mexican population was growing quickly. Mexicans, he argues, were excluded from most city neighborhoods, forcing Mexicans into very high-density housing in working-class neighborhoods such as the Belvedere *barrio*, which "which had the distinction of being the worst slum on the Pacific Coast with the highest number of relief cases, delinquencies, and other social problems" (p. 224). Wartime housing financed by

the federal government included quota restrictions "to keep blacks and Mexicans out of certain areas of Los Angeles, even when housing was available" (p. 225). Fox and Guglielmo (2012) also point out that in some cities, racially restrictive housing covenants and deed restrictions targeted Mexicans (see also Fogelson 1967, pp. 200-201). But they believed that more often residential segregation of Mexicans resulted from more informal local practices, and in many areas "where fewer Mexicans resided, they lived side by side with Anglos peaceably" (2012, p. 360). That general pattern was confirmed in 1970 (Massey 1979) and 1980 (Massey and Denton 1987), but it did not apply well to Puerto Ricans.

Camarillo describes *barrios* in two other cities. In San Bernardino he reports a settlement that was initially established on the Santa Fe Railroad yards, then displaced to a Westside location after 1900. In San Diego, partly due to restrictive covenants, there developed a Black and Mexican area southeast of downtown that was growing rapidly in the 1920s. One neighborhood, Logan Heights, had a Mexican population of about 20,000 by the late 1920s, constituting the second largest concentration of Mexicans in Southern California (Camarillo 1979, p. 210).

Valdes (2000) examined settlement patterns in Midwestern cities after World War I. In Chicago he reports areas concentrations of Mexicans on the Near West Side associated with railroad maintenance works and migrant sugar beet farmworkers, in the stockyards, and in South Chicago (see also Arredondo 2008). Taylor (1933/1934) mapped the "Mexican Colonies" of Chicago and the Calumet region in 1928, showing pockets of high Mexican density in specific blocks, within larger and more mixed ethnic working-class districts. In East Chicago the Indiana Harbor neighborhood, the location of Inland Steel, became the "first major urban neighborhood in the Great Lakes region with a Mexican majority" (Valdes 2000, p. 40). Throughout the

Midwest, "older *barrios* generally expanded while new *colonias* appeared in industrial suburbs and working-class districts of medium-sized and smaller cities" (2000, p. 136), such as the Argentine and Armourdale districts of Kansas City.

Reviewing this historical period, Telles and Ortiz (2008) acknowledge processes of rigid segregation in cities like San Antonio and Los Angeles. Yet they distinguish Hispanics' position from that of African Americans. Unlike Blacks, they argued that Mexicans "experienced an uneven and unusual intermediate racialization that often depended … on the time and place or on the individual's skin color or class status" (pp. 78-79). However, because so much of the historical evidence is impressionistic, the actual trajectory of segregation is unknown. It may have been low and rising, high but declining, or stable at moderate levels in the years before 1980.

Research design

We aim to trace Hispanic population trends for 1900-2020, including its predominantly urban destinations and its extension to parts of the country beyond the historic concentrations in the Southwest. For Hispanics living in the urbanized portions of metropolitan areas, we then describe their trajectory of residential segregation, including not only their overall level of separation from whites but also where they were concentrated in the metropolis. To achieve these aims we deal with several challenges of data availability and measurement.

Sampling and variable construction

The analysis draws on neighborhood-level data at the scale of enumeration districts (EDs) or block groups (BGs) that are now available for the first time. For the years 1900-1950, we use 100% individual level Census microdata from the Minnesota Population Center (Ruggles et al. 2021), aggregated to the level of the ED, areas that were smaller than tracts and comparable to

contemporary block groups. During this period, the enumeration district was the smallest available geography for the entire country. 1960 and 1970 data come from original, confidential population samples from the decennial Census of Population, accessed in a Federal Statistical Research Data Center (FSRDC), also aggregated to EDs. These counts were approved for public disclosure by the Census Bureau, along with their county and city/place location. For 1980-2020 we use the most comparable neighborhood unit, the block group (BG), for which data are reported from the full count census.

The analysis requires that we locate neighborhoods (EDs and BGs) in a consistent way over time. There are two key distinctions. An important distinction is whether people lived in metropolitan areas, in proximity to major urban centers, or more remotely. The meaning of the Census Bureau's "metropolitan" designation has evolved over time, and it now refers to a territory encompassing at least one large, dense central city, surrounded by an urbanized area in its periphery. The number of metropolitan areas has risen, and many have expanded their boundaries from decade to decade. If we used current definitions, we would include many that were very lightly populated and predominantly rural in the first half of the 20th Century. For consistency over time, we employ the 1970 Census metropolitan definitions. These are county-based definitions and we include all counties that were defined as metropolitan in 1970.[1] In many cases, this means that we omit recently added counties to a given metropolis, and in other cases we include a county that in the earlier decades was mostly rural.

The second distinction is between central city and suburban neighborhoods. Every metropolitan area has at least one central city. We use the 1970 definitions of central cities, while also adding Niagara Falls, NY; Council Bluffs, IA; and Elizabeth, NJ; which had been classified as central cities in prior decades.[2] Outside central cities, we treat neighborhoods as

"suburban" if they are within the metropolitan area and in a settled community that has been identified as a "place." For this purpose, we use non-central-city place identifiers from the Census for the years 1960-2020. Census place identifiers are not available in the 1900-1950 decades. In this period, we use the "stdcity" variable created by IPUMS to identify places by name. In the Northeast, where townships are common, and where a township does not contain any other places, we identify townships as places, using IPUMS' "stdtownship" variable.

In the first phase of the analysis, where we chart the broad contours of Hispanic settlement at a national scale, we distinguish cities and suburbs from all other locations. The latter include both small towns outside metropolitan areas and low-density fringe territories, and we refer to it as "non-metro or rural metro." In the early decades after 1900, a substantial share of the "metropolitan" population (i.e., people in metropolitan counties using our 1970 definitions) was rural, including outlying small hamlets and agricultural zones. Over time, the urbanized areas of these counties expanded. Our approach to defining suburbs allows us to include a newly developing neighborhood as "suburban" in one year, while treating it as "rural fringe" in prior years.

A key feature of this study is our use of original census microdata to identify persons by race and Hispanic origin in a way that is comparable to contemporary categories of Hispanic and non-Hispanic white. For 1900-1950, we use the methodology of Gratton and Guttman (2000) to identify Hispanics based on a variety of indicators such as whether they, their spouse, or parents were born in Latin America and whether they spoke Spanish at home during childhood.[3] A majority of Hispanics were enumerated as white. Our category of non-Hispanic whites omits Hispanics from the white count. For 1960 and 1970, we access the confidential, 20% sample from the Census of Population in the FSRDC to identify Hispanics as persons who spoke

Spanish in their household during childhood. We use person weights to aggregate these data to ED-level population estimates. In these years the non-Hispanic white count in an ED is the full (short form) count of whites minus the weighted sample count of white Hispanics. For 1980 and later years, we rely on the Hispanic origin question in the decennial census.

Measures of segregation

We wish to highlight both the high levels of segregation found in cities and the contribution of suburban development to segregation at a metropolitan scale. Here we follow the lead of researchers (Fisher et al 2004, Parisi, Lichter and Taquino 2011, Lichter et al. 2015, Carlson et al 2025) who emphasized a distinction between micro-level segregation (uneven distribution across neighborhoods in the metropolitan area) and macro-segregation (the disparity between areas at larger scales). We examine two components of micro-segregation, defined as segregation between neighborhoods 1) in the central city or 2) in the suburbs. We also examine two components of macro-segregation, where the units of analysis are not neighborhoods but larger communities. One is the divide between cities and suburbs, which has been the subject of much research on urban inequality, though in a literature that focuses on Blacks and whites (for example, Farley et al, 1978, on "chocolate city, vanilla suburbs"). The other is segregation among suburban places, most of which are politically independent municipalities that may contain many neighborhoods. The distinctions among these components are theoretically important. While micro-segregation refers to segregation between neighborhoods *within places*, macro-segregation involves segregation *between places*. In studies of urban inequality, the latter has special significance. For example, the place stratification perspective (Logan and Molotch 1987) argues that a central mechanism underlying segregation is whites' use of a variety of discriminatory tools to preserve and reinforce spatial separation from non-whites. Exclusionary

development policies can both prevent minorities from moving outside central cities and, for those who find suburban locations, consign them to the least advantaged communities. For these reasons, the effort to decompose metropolitan segregation into its micro- and macro- portions is not just a methodological detail, but rather a theoretically salient approach.

We rely first on the Index of Dissimilarity (D) at various spatial scales to chart changes in the levels of segregation over time. This index has the advantage that it can be directly compared with results from almost all prior historical studies. D is a measure of the unevenness of distribution between any two categories of people, ranging from a minimum of 0 if both groups are distributed exactly the same way across areas to a maximum of 1 in the case of complete apartheid.

For the more specific purpose of partitioning segregation into its spatial components – e.g., what share of total segregation is due to segregation within cities compared to, for example, segregation between cities and suburbs – we employ another measure of unevenness of distribution, Theil's (H). H is an entropy-based measure that compares the diversity of the metro as a whole to the diversity of individual areas within it, with 1 representing maximum segregation and 0 reflecting perfect integration. H is the standard measure in studies that seek to decompose total segregation into its component parts. Because decomposition is a relatively recent approach, we describe it in some detail. First, one calculates entropy scores (E), which represent the overall diversity of a given area, and are defined as

$$E = -\sum_{r=1}^{n} \pi_r \, log(\pi_r)$$

where π_r is the proportion of racial group r in the area. Then H measures how closely E of the sub-geographies aligns with the E of the largest geography, using this formula

$$H = \sum_{i=1}^{M} \frac{t_i(E - E_i)}{ET}$$

where for T and t_i represent the total population of the largest geography and the sub-geography, respectively. E and E_i similarly represent the entropy scores for the largest geography and the sub-geography. H is now often used in studies of multigroup segregation, but for this analysis, all of our indices represent the two-group segregation between Hispanics and non-Hispanic whites.

Let us represent total metropolitan segregation as H_{total}. Following Lichter et al (2015) it can be decomposed as follows:

$$H_{total} = H_{CxS} + \frac{T_S E_S}{TE} H_{SP} + \sum_{p \in S} \frac{T_p E_p}{TE} H_p + \frac{T_C E_C}{TE} H_C$$

Here T and E are the population and entropy for the metropolitan region. H_{CxS} is the segregation between the two geographies of central city and suburb. H_{SP} is the segregation between suburban places, and T_S and E_S are the population and entropy of all suburbs. For each suburban place (p), T E, and H are its population, entropy, and segregation, which when summed across all places is a measure of suburban micro-segregation. T_C, E_C, and H_C are, respectively, the population, entropy, and segregation for central cities. Dividing each term separately by H_{total} yields the proportion of total segregation that is attributable to each component.

Results: Hispanic Growth and Redistribution, 1900-2020

Tables 1 and 2 report the changing Hispanic population in terms of its regional distribution and its location in different kinds of rural and urban areas as described above. These tables are based on the ED and BG data for the whole country in every year. Table 1 shows that there were less than a half million Hispanic residents in 1900, comprising only about 0.5% of the

nation. It has now grown to over 65 million in 2020, nearly 20% of the U.S. total, and Hispanics have become the second largest population group after non-Hispanic whites.[4]

The growth rate was in the range of 50-70% per decade through 1930. A significant slowdown in the 1930 Depression decade (+23%), was followed by a remarkable surge from 1940 to 1960 when the number jumped by more than 3.5 million (161% in two decades). Gratton and Gutman estimate that Puerto Rican migrants accounted for much of this increase (from under 100,000 in 1940 to more than a million in 1960), though the increase in Mexican Americans was also high, well above pre-1930 rates of growth. Table 1 shows an increase of only 36% in the 1960s, though it was boosted by both Cuban and Puerto Rican newcomers. Researchers are familiar with the rapid growth of the Hispanic population following the passage of the Immigration and Naturalization Act of 1965. The Hispanic population rose 87% in the 1970s, comparable to growth in the 1940-1960 years. Since that time, however, although the volume of growth was unprecedented – many millions every decade – the rate of increase (40-60% per decade) was more comparable to the early 20th Century, and growth was only 23% between 2010 and 2020.

We can describe Hispanics' locational pattern at a national level in terms of their regional distribution and their location in different kinds of neighborhoods on a rural-urban dimension. The changes that we report resulted from both migration within the U.S. and the destination of new immigrants. We cannot separately measure these two components. Because the Hispanic population was growing mostly through immigration in the last century, however, it is fair to attribute much of their locational change to choices made by new immigrants about where to live.

In terms of region, Table 1 shows the predominance of the West (in which we include Texas as a Southwestern border state). These data are also illustrated in Figure 1 (for 1900-1970) and Figure 2 (for 1970-2020, with a different scale). Nearly 80% of Hispanics lived in Western states in 1900, though the West accounted for only 11% of the U.S. total population. This Western predominance was maintained through 1920, after which it began to fall slowly but persistently – 75.8% in 1930, 68.7% in 1960, 62.3% in 2000, and 56.5% in 2020. If having a substantially rising share of the nation's Hispanic population is interpreted as an indicator that a region was becoming a "new destination" for Hispanics, the Northeast and Midwest were new destinations in 1920-1970, and the South (including but not limited to Florida) has been a new destination since 1960.

Table 1 about here

Figures 1-2 about here

Besides this regional dispersion, another major shift in Hispanics' location in this period was urbanization. Table 2 reports the distribution of Hispanics across three types of rural and urban location as described above. Figures 3 (for 1900-1940) and 4 (for 1940-2020, with a different scale) illustrate the trends. It is challenging to create categories that are informative across the whole 20th Century. Defining metropolitan areas and central cities according to their status in 1970 reflects their character for most of the century. We identify central cities based on 1970 status, but we allow cities to expand over time. Similarly, our identification of suburban places allows for new development outside the city to be counted as "suburban" in later years, though rural in earlier years.

In 1900, reflecting the 19th Century settlement pattern in the Southwest, more than 70% of Hispanics lived outside of cities or suburbs. As the Hispanic population grew through

immigration, however, the combined non-metro/rural metro share declined to less than 50% in 1930, and less than 30% by 1960. It is still an appreciable share of the total, but no longer predominant.

Close to 30% of Hispanics lived in central cities in 1900. This share grew steadily (though falling in the depression era of the 1930s), and by 1950 it reached nearly 50%. Since that time, although the absolute number of Hispanic central city residents continued to grow, the central city share has fallen to only a third in 2020. More persistent has been the process of suburbanization. It is well known that suburban populations grew rapidly after 1950, and most attention has been focused on the observation that it was predominantly white, while excluding African Americans (most recently, see Logan et al 2023). However, Hispanics also participated in the suburbanization process, especially after 1950. While only 10.5% of Hispanics lived in suburbs in 1950, this share jumped to 20.8% in 1960, and reached above 40% in 2020. Unlike African Americans, Hispanics kept pace with overall population suburbanization in the whole post-1950 era. Suburbs are now the most common Hispanic location.

Table 2 about here

Figures 3-4 about here

Results: Mapping segregation in three major Hispanic urban centers

We now turn to the study of segregation of Hispanics from whites in the urban centers where they were increasingly living. We begin with three cases – San Antonio, Los Angeles, and New York City – that were the most important centers of Hispanic settlement in the first half of the 20th Century. We visualize segregation patterns in 1930, when locational patterns were already becoming clear and the standard measure of segregation, D, was already at or near the .60 level that researchers interpret as "very high." For this purpose, we use ED maps available

from the Urban Transition HGIS Project (https://s4.ad.brown.edu/Projects/UTP2/citymaps.htm). We then present standard measures of segregation in the urbanized portions of these three metropolitan areas for the whole period 1900-2020. In a later section we present comparable results for all 219 metropolitan areas.

San Antonio had the largest Hispanic, mainly Mexican, population in the country at the beginning of the 20th Century. Los Angeles soon overtook San Antonio in terms of the number, but not the share, of Hispanic residents. New York became the largest Hispanic community during 1940-1970, mainly due to Puerto Rican migration, but then fell behind Los Angeles by 1980. Figures 5-7 map the Hispanic population share in EDs in each of the cities (large portions of Los Angeles and New York City where the Hispanic share was quite low have been omitted). These maps offer more information than D or H, which are indices of unevenness of distribution (Massey and Denton 1988). First, in every case there are areas of concentration, typically near the older and denser city center. But these concentrations rarely created majority Hispanic neighborhoods in New York, where what is distinctive is the large number of neighborhoods with almost no Hispanic presence. At the other extreme, in San Antonio there is a substantial cluster of adjacent majority-Hispanic neighborhoods, and even the "white" neighborhoods are often in the range of 5-10% Hispanic. It is also interesting to compare the residential pattern that had crystallized as early as 1930 with later developments. Typically, the original Hispanic neighborhoods have remained the core of the Hispanic community, but newcomers extended the original areas and created large enclaves in new areas.

The first case is Los Angeles, where Hispanics were about 8% of the population in 1930. They were most concentrated in an area to the east of downtown, including neighborhoods on both the west and east side to the Los Angeles River and Union Pacific Railroad, which ran north

to south. It includes the area that later became Chinatown, extending north to Chavez Ravine. This matches the report by Camarillo (1979) that there were early barrios near downtown but that Hispanics were moving east of the river in the 1920s. Watts (further south) had an equally large share of Mexican residents. In several EDs their share exceeded 50% (shown in dark brown), while in large areas of the city they were mostly absent or no more than 5% of residents. Although segregation was in the very high range, there were also areas (shown in yellow) where the Hispanic presence was closer to their city population share, between 5% and 25%. Not shown here are neighborhoods outside the city in East Los Angeles that were growing rapidly from an influx of Mexican immigrants. By 1940 this was a core area of the Hispanic community, which later expanded to a much larger area in the suburbs to the south by 1980.

San Antonio is mapped in Figure 6, which includes the entire city. A very large area just west of the center city (the Mexican West Side) was disproportionately Hispanic, with a considerable core over 60% and one enumeration district as high as 97%. No ED in the city had less than 2% Hispanic share, but many were below 5%. This map illustrates high segregation in a bifurcated city with a much larger Hispanic population share than Los Angeles (about 32%). By 1980, as a result of the growing Hispanic population, most of the city had become majority Hispanic, with the exception of an African American enclave on the east side, and the white population had become largely suburban.

Finally Figure 7 presents a map of the most densely populated portions of New York City, including Manhattan and parts of Brooklyn. Hispanics were less than 2% of the city population in 1930, making it a case of very high segregation of a small minority group. In Manhattan, Hispanics counted only about 125,000 in a city of nearly 7 million, and were concentrated in the Lower East Side and East Harlem in formerly Jewish and Italian

neighborhoods. In Brooklyn they clustered in the older neighborhoods along the waterfront, near the Brooklyn Bridge and Manhattan Bridge. Only a few EDs were higher than 25% Hispanic, and these were surrounded by EDs that were mostly only 5-25% Hispanic. This locational pattern was maintained for decades. It evolved in the 1970s and 1980s to include large new Hispanic zones in Brooklyn across the Williamsburg Bridge, in the South Bronx, and in Manhattan's Washington Heights.

Figures 5-7 about here

Now let us review how the Hispanic population evolved in these cities metropolitan areas over the full 1900-2020 period. Table 3 reports the Hispanic population size and share and segregation (the Index of Dissimilarity for Hispanics vs non-Hispanic whites) in every decade. The Hispanic populations were initially small in all three regions, in the range of 10,000 to 20,000 in 1900 and 1910. San Antonio was distinctive, however, in having a higher share of Hispanics in the population, already one-sixth in 1900 and nearly a quarter in 1910. This share rose steadily over the years, surpassing 40% in 1960 and above 50% by 2000. New York, in contrast, had only a small share of Hispanic residents, reaching only 2.3% in 1940 when Hispanics in New York first outnumbered those in Los Angeles. It was not until 1970 that the Hispanic share reached 10%, though it rose above 20% by 2000 and reached above a quarter in 2020. Los Angeles represents the case where there were both large numbers and also a substantial share of Hispanics throughout most of this period, and a near-majority in 2020.

Table 3 about here

Segregation in all three metropolitan areas was moderately high in 1900. It was below .40 in Los Angeles but closer to .50 in San Antonio and New York. In all three it rose over time as the Hispanic population grew. It reached a peak of about .70 in 1960 in San Antonio and New

York. It had already climbed to nearly .70 in Los Angeles by 1930, then declined modestly before rising above .60 again in 1990 and later years. The post-1930 figures represent levels of segregation that researchers interpret as very high segregation. Hispanic-white segregation was well entrenched in 1900, and it rose over the decades although it was generally lower than Black-white segregation in the same years (comparable figure for Black-white segregation in this period are provided in Carlson et al 2023).

Results: National and regional trajectories of urban segregation

We now turn to the analysis of the patterns and trends of segregation at a national level. We limit our attention to the urbanized portions of metropolitan areas, as defined in 1970. This means, first, that we omit counties (and towns in New England) that were not included in a metropolitan area in 1970. In addition, in every decade we omit enumeration districts (EDs) and block groups (BGs) that were designated as "rural" in that decade. As for the three metropolitan areas above, we measure levels of segregation (relying on the Index of Dissimilarity, D) for the whole 1900-2020 period. Here, however, we report more detailed components of segregation. We refer to some of these components as micro-segregation, including segregation across neighborhoods in the metropolitan area as a whole, in the central city, and in the suburbs. Others reflect segregation at higher geographical scales, and we refer to this as macro-segregation: segregation between the central city and the suburban periphery as a whole, and segregation between suburban places.

In addition to measuring segregation at each of these spatial scales, we also decompose the total metropolitan segregation into the shares that are attributable to each component. This allows us to address the question of how much of the total segregation in metropolitan areas can be attributed specifically to neighborhood segregation within central cities, for example, or to

other components. Both the levels of segregation of each component, and the share it contributes to total segregation, change over time. For this purpose, we rely on the entropy-based index H, which is easily decomposed in this way.

Table 4 reports levels of segregation as measured by D, in every case weighted by the Hispanic population size in each metro. Hence these averages represent the level of segregation in the metropolitan area where the average Hispanic person lived in each year. The total segregation across neighborhoods in metropolitan areas is similar to what we found for the three large metros in Table 3. It was moderate in 1900 (slightly above .40), it rose through 1930 to close to .60 (very high), and remained about that level until dropping after 1970. There was, of course, variation among metros. As we saw above, metropolitan segregation Los Angeles rose again after falling slightly in the 1960s and has remained above .60 since 1990, but in San Antonio it rose higher and fell eventually to a lower level than the national average.

Table 4 offers new insights into where in the metropolis segregation was rising and falling. Segregation across neighborhoods in the central cities followed closely the metropolitan trend of rising and then falling beck to a moderate-to-high level. Segregation across suburban neighborhoods had a similar trajectory, but with the difference that it was always somewhat lower than in the cities. The city/suburb divide is distinctive because there was only very modest city/suburb segregation through 1940, it nearly doubled by 1960, and rose through the 1960s (at a time when neighborhood segregation within cities and suburbs was falling), before declining slowly after 1970. The post-World War II rise of "white suburbs" mirrors what is known about Black exclusion from suburbia in the same period, but while Black-white city/suburb segregation rose as high as .375, it was never more than half that level for Hispanics. Finally, there was always moderate segregation across suburban places, generally in the range of .30 to .40. This

indicates that in addition to segregation within suburban communities, there was also segregation between them. And unlike neighborhood-level micro-segregation, segregation between suburban places was persistent through 2020. It fluctuated around .30 until the 1960s, then rose above .35 for the following decades. The overall picture is of the rise and fall of Hispanic segregation at a metropolitan level, attributable to changes within cities and within suburbia, alongside more persistent macro-segregation between the city and its suburban surroundings and especially between suburban places.

Tables 4-5 about here

Table 5 repeats this analysis for metros in different regions of the country (treating Texas as a Western state for this purpose). One finding at the metropolitan level is that the segregation through most of this period was higher in the Northeast and Midwest than in the South and West. One might have expected segregation to be highest in the West, with its higher share of Hispanics in the population and its longer history of Hispanic settlement. In fact the highest average levels were in the Midwest, where Hispanics were present in very small shares – metropolitan segregation already above .65 during 1900-1930. To explain this pattern would require much additional information about how Hispanics were recruited to Midwestern cities in these early decades, what work they were doing and how they found places to live. One hypothesis is that the importance of sugar beets and railway maintenance as Hispanic labor markets meant that they tended to work for the same employers and consequently were more likely to live near one another. In the West one might expect a more differentiated labor market.

Another regional difference is found in the trajectory of city/suburb segregation. In the West there was a long and gradual rise from .025 in 1900 to .083 in 1940, then actually a decline through 1960, and little change from 1970 onwards. At the other extreme, city/suburb

segregation jumped from .06 or .07 in 1940 to .23 in 1960 and .33 in 1970 in both the Northeast and the Midwest. Again, there is insufficient information to explain this difference. One hypothesis, though, is that the historical legacy of rural Hispanic settlements in the West may have evolved into denser "suburban" locations as population began to shift toward the suburbs. Segregation between suburban neighborhoods in the West was considerably lower than in the Northeast and Midwest in the 1900-1930, suggesting early acceptance of Hispanics as neighbors in that era. However segregation among suburban neighborhoods and between suburban places period in the West after that time was similar to what was found in other regions. This means that although Hispanics were more able to live in suburban territory in the Est than elsewhere, they tended to be excluded from white suburban neighborhoods and communities.

The changing relative contributions of these spatial components of segregation are shown more clearly in Table 6. Here we measure and decompose segregation using the entropy measure H. The table reports the weighted mean value of total H for metropolitan areas, and the proportion of H that is attributable uniquely to each spatial component. H has a different distribution of values over time than D, but it has the same pattern of a low starting value in 1900 (.132), rising to .373 in 1960 (with a pause in the 1930s), and then a gradual decline.

Table 6 about here

In 1900 segregation was almost entirely attributable to neighborhood-level segregation within central cities, with a share of .945. The central city share declined to .354 in 2020. There was a temporary uptick in the 1930s. The fastest rate of decline was in the 20-year period 1940-1960, when the share dropped by about .09 per decade, with declines of .05 or .06 in some subsequent decades.

The counterpart of this drop in the central city share is increases in each of the other three components, all of which depend on residential shifts related to the suburbs. The share due to segregation among suburban neighborhoods increased especially in 1940-1960 when suburbs were rapidly expanding their populations. City/suburb segregation had a tiny share in the decades 1900-1940, then increased moderately to a level around .10 after 1940. The largest change was in segregation among suburban places, quite low through 1940, and then climbing continually through subsequent decades to reach .372 in 2020. By now, segregation among suburban places contributes as much to total metro segregation as segregation among central city neighborhoods. This shift is due to a combination of modestly declining segregation within the cities, and levels of suburban place segregation that were never high but rose above .30 (measured by D) and remained at that level after 1970. In addition, since the contribution of a spatial component depends on the population weight assigned to it, the more rapid growth of suburbs compared to cities also affects this outcome.

The trend toward an increasing role of macro-segregation was previously reported by Fischer et al (2004) who studied Black vs non-Black segregation in the period 1960-2000. They found that while neighborhood-level segregation (between census tracts within places) was declining in this period, segregation between suburban places was increasing, and segregation between cities and their suburbs increased greatly from 1960 to 1970 before then leveling off. A more recent analysis (Lichter, Parisi, and Taquino 2015, see also Parisi, Lichter, and Taquino 2011, Farrell 2008) used a similar methodology to study changes in the components of segregation between 1990 and 2010. They found that total tract-level segregation between Blacks and whites declined substantially in these two decades, but the share attributable to neighborhood segregation within central cities was declining while the share attributable to

disparities between the cities, suburbs, and fringe areas, and between suburban places was rising. They interpreted these results as evidence of the emergence of a "new political economy of place." Places, in their view, "cities, suburban communities, and small communities in the exurbs, rather than neighborhoods are key political and legal units that engage in practices that either include or exclude specific populations" (2015, p. 848). previously by other researchers.

To compare trends in micro- and macro-segregation for Hispanics and Blacks, we draw on results reported by Carlson et al (2023), who used the same microdata and metropolitan definitions for the full 1900-2020 period. Figure 5 shows the trends in the share of metropolitan segregation contributed by separation among central city neighborhoods and among suburban neighborhoods (micro-segregation). The trends are nearly identical for Hispanics and Blacks – a slightly rising share contributed by suburbs alongside a rapidly falling share contributed by central city neighborhoods. Figure 6 shows the trends for the two macro-segregation components. With minor variations, they both rose for both Hispanics and Blacks after 1940. A difference is that in the Black-white case, the increasing role of city/suburb segregation was more pronounced. For both groups, though, segregation among suburban places was the fastest rising component, and for both groups it had become the single largest contributor to metropolitan segregation by 2020.

Table 7 reports the trends for Hispanic-white segregation by region. In broad strokes the trends were similar in all four regions, but there are differences in the magnitude of changes. First, the decline in the relative contribution of central city segregation was greatest in the South, which began in 1900 at .99 and dropped to almost .20 by 2020. In no other region was the city's share less than about .35. Second, the West is distinctive for an invariably small contribution of city/suburb segregation, never reaching as much as .10. The city/suburb share was also generally

low in the South, but it did briefly reach above .20 in 1970. It is in the Northeast and Midwest that the city/suburb divide had a greater role, rising substantially after 1940 and remaining above .20 in the following years. These are the regions where suburbia most clearly developed a "white" identity after World War II.

Table 7 about here

Discussion and conclusion

This is the first systematic study of Hispanic residential patterns for the whole United States since 1900. Because no similar study was carried out prior to 1980, our findings neither contradict nor confirm prior findings. However, they are generally consistent with the evidence that has been available regarding trends in urbanization and regional distribution. Hispanics evolved from a small (barely above 400,000) population concentrated in the West (nearly 80%) to more than 65 million persons who still were most prevalent in the West (where almost 60% lived) but with a considerable presence in the South, Northeast, and Midwest. In 1900, a majority lived in rural areas, more than 40%) in non-metropolitan counties and another 21% in the undeveloped periphery of metropolitan counties. Even then, however, 28% lived in central cities. The rural and non-metropolitan fringe areas dropped sharply over time in their share of the Hispanic population – less than a majority already by 1920, barely 40% by 1940, and only 10% in 2020.

This rural decline had its counterpart in growth of the central city share, especially in the decades through 1960, when more than half of Hispanics lived in central cities. Subsequently that growth has ebbed and then declined. A more recent phenomenon, larger in scale, was growth in the suburbs. At a time when African Americans were being actively excluded from suburbia, the share of Hispanics living in suburbs climbed from 6.8% in 1940 to over 20% in

1960 and over 30% in 1980. In 2020, while the central city share has fallen to one third, more than 40% of Hispanics live in suburbs.

The distinctive suburbanization of Hispanics has not been widely noticed. The share of Hispanics living in suburbs lagged only slightly behind the share of the total population in suburbs through 1980, and since that time it has been the same. It might be speculated that this pattern is an artifact of Hispanics' continuing over-representation in the West. However, not shown here, the Hispanic share living in suburbs has consistently been much higher since 1920 than that of the total population in the South, about the same in the Midwest and West, though lower in the Northeast. Only in the Northeast (where in 2020 44.4% of the total population, but only 31.7% of the Hispanic population was suburban) is there a pattern of suburban exclusion for Hispanics similar to that experienced by African Americans.

We have also developed considerable new information about Hispanics' location in major cities and about trends and patterns of metropolitan segregation. In three main Hispanic urban centers (San Antonio, Los Angeles, and New York), we found that Hispanic-white segregation was moderately high in 1900. As their Hispanic populations grew, segregation by 1930 also increased to a level at or near .60, which is understood to be very high, and it remained high through the present time. Although they had very different shares of Hispanics, our mapping of Hispanic neighborhoods in their central cities in 1930 shows that large Hispanic concentrations had developed by that time. That is, neighborhoods with high shares of Hispanic residents were not dispersed around the cities, but were forming larger contiguous Hispanic areas. Hispanic neighborhoods were joining to form larger Hispanic districts, a process that is referred to as ghettoization in the African American context.

Our analysis of segregation across all metropolitan areas in the country shows that the average level was rising in a similar way to these three major centers – moderate in 1900, around .60 by 1970, then falling below .55. It then takes the additional step of decomposing segregation into its micro and macro contributors. The overall trajectory is matched by the rise and then decline of segregation in central cities, and also in suburbia, although always after 1900 at a lower level. In this respect, Hispanic segregation ran parallel to Black-white segregation, though it never reached as high. These findings confirm for a more comprehensive sample and over a longer time frame the Hispanic-Black comparisons reported by the Taeubers and Massey, cited above.

Our data on macro-segregation adds important new detail on the growing significance of segregation between city and suburb and among suburban places. City-suburb segregation was low compared to the experience of African Americans, but it rose substantially after 1940, and never dropped again below its 1960 level. Segregation among suburban places was higher. Although it fluctuated from decade to decade, it was higher by 1970 than it had been in the 1900-1920 period and unlike micro-segregation it has remained consistently above that level. Here is where we find the closest parallel to the Black case. For both groups, micro-segregation – segregation among neighborhoods within the central city and within suburban places – has been giving way to macro-segregation, and especially to segregation among suburban places. As Carlson et al (2023) found for Blacks, the largest contributor to Hispanic segregation now is at the level of suburban places. Hispanics have always had access to living outside of central cities, but increasingly they are located in different suburban communities than whites – communities with a place identify, often with separate school districts and municipal governments that create the motivation and potential for local residents to pursue exclusionary development policies.

Many additional questions can be addressed using the 120-year longitudinal data file that we have constructed at the neighborhood scale. To study change in individual neighborhoods over time would require historical GIS mapping at the ED or block group scale that is not yet available for most cities and years before 1990. Many topics, though, can be examined without mapping. A standard goal of segregation research is to document and account for the variation across metropolitan areas and over time in the levels of segregation. This has been pursued in multiple studies with data in 1980 and beyond, and now there is no obstacle to looking into the earlier decades. For Hispanics, a natural question at the metropolitan scale is whether segregation is associated with the size of the Hispanic population, its national origin, or its social class composition.

Another direction for research is to look beyond the racial/ethnic composition of neighborhoods. Especially relevant to urban inequality are other characteristics of the neighborhoods in which Hispanics are clustered, such as their income level (available since the 1940 census) or occupational composition (available in all decades). To what degree did rural location and residential separation earlier in the 20th Century also imply social inequality for Hispanics? Such questions can also be pursued with multilevel models, if the neighborhood data is merged with characteristics of people, both of which can be drawn from the transcribed microdata up through 1950. For example, were immigrants more likely to live in a predominantly Hispanic neighborhood than the U.S.-born, or did those with higher occupational standing live in more integrated or higher-class neighborhoods? When and where and for whom, and in what historical period, was there not only residential segregation but also potential for spatial assimilation for Hispanics?

Footnotes

1. One exception to this is that some New England metros are defined by towns rather than counties. As a solution, we use the method provided by Bogue (1953) to assign whole counties to metros. Also, some 1970 metropolitan areas, such as Las Vegas, had no urban center as early as 1900. For this reason, the number of metropolitan areas included in this study rises from to 207 in 1900 to 219 for 1940 and beyond.

2. This means that a metropolitan area can have multiple central cities, which is one point of differentiation from Lichter et al. (2015), who use only the first-listed city in the metropolitan area name as the central city. For example, we would count both Minneapolis and St. Paul as central cities, while Lichter et al. would only count Minneapolis. The implication is that Lichter et al. find higher between-suburban-place segregation and lower city-suburb-fringe segregation than we do, since they classify some larger diverse cities in metros as suburbs, while we count them as central cities.

3. These criteria were consolidated by IPUMS into the variable "hispan."

4. The national totals for 1900-1920 and 1940-1990 can be compared with estimates published by Gratton and Guttman (2000, p. 243). We relied on the IPUMS coding of Hispanics for 1900-1950, which was based on Gratton and Guttman's criteria for each decade. The main difference is that our counts are based on 100% microdata, whereas they used sample data. For 1960 and 1970 we drew on a 20% sample and based classification solely on language spoken at home during childhood. Gratton and Guttman also used sample data in 1960 and 1970, but relied on birthplace and parents' birthplaces as well as "mother tongue." In the earlier decades their national estimates are considerably higher than ours (by 22% in 1900, 26% in 1910, and 19% in 1920). Their estimates for 1940-1960 are within 1-2% of ours. They also presented national

estimates for 1970-1990 relying on the census's Hispanic origin question, but based on a 1% sample. Their 1970 estimate is 14% higher than ours in 1970, but it is very similar in 1980 and 1990.

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Table 1. Hispanic population by region, and regional shares of national total, 1900-2020									
	Total	West		Northeast		Midwest		South	
1900	413,836	328,274	0.793	32,198	0.078	12,750	0.031	40,614	0.098
1910	632,921	504,383	0.797	40,973	0.065	27,127	0.043	60,438	0.095
1920	1,085,666	853,394	0.786	92,072	0.085	63,225	0.058	76,975	0.071
1930	1,778,814	1,348,414	0.758	200,257	0.113	142,320	0.080	87,823	0.049
1940	2,194,214	1,601,996	0.730	296,008	0.135	159,267	0.073	136,943	0.062
1950	3,134,871	2,221,239	0.709	528,799	0.169	242,792	0.077	142,041	0.045
1960	5,735,024	3,941,454	0.687	1,136,943	0.198	403,629	0.070	252,998	0.044
1970	7,823,583	4,887,339	0.625	1,715,316	0.219	618,027	0.079	602,901	0.077
1980	14,608,673	9,239,697	0.632	2,604,289	0.178	1,276,545	0.087	1,488,142	0.102
1990	22,354,059	14,446,045	0.646	3,754,389	0.168	1,726,509	0.077	2,427,116	0.109
2000	35,305,414	22,009,973	0.623	5,253,957	0.149	3,124,468	0.088	4,917,016	0.139
2010	50,477,594	30,057,360	0.595	6,991,969	0.139	4,661,678	0.092	8,766,587	0.174
2020	62,080,044	35,051,361	0.565	8,794,868	0.142	5,978,786	0.096	12,255,029	0.197

Table 2. Hispanic population by rural-urban location, 1900-2020							
	Total	Non-metro/rural metro		Central city		Suburb	
1900	413,836	293,360	0.709	113,449	0.274	7,027	0.017
1910	632,921	419,653	0.663	193,516	0.306	19,752	0.031
1920	1,085,666	625,313	0.576	409,228	0.377	51,125	0.047
1930	1,778,814	851,411	0.479	785,240	0.441	142,163	0.080
1940	2,194,214	1,125,268	0.513	920,413	0.419	148,533	0.068
1950	3,134,871	1,252,570	0.400	1,552,746	0.495	329,555	0.105
1960	5,735,024	1,514,888	0.264	3,025,537	0.528	1,194,599	0.208
1970	7,823,583	1,598,762	0.204	4,248,788	0.543	1,976,033	0.253
1980	14,608,673	2,961,810	0.203	7,138,785	0.489	4,508,078	0.309
1990	22,354,059	4,146,714	0.186	10,369,354	0.464	7,837,991	0.351
2000	35,305,414	6,736,488	0.191	14,957,078	0.424	13,611,848	0.386
2010	54,166,049	14,293,649	0.264	18,863,958	0.348	21,008,442	0.388
2020	65,329,087	17,482,546	0.268	21,542,691	0.330	26,303,850	0.403

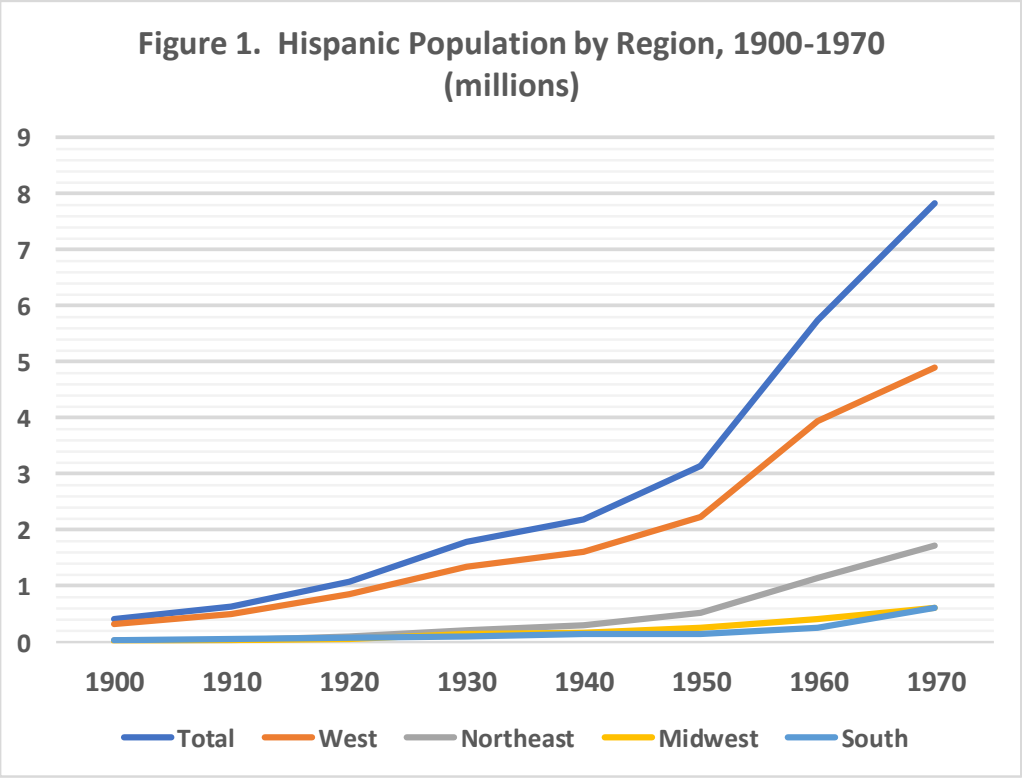
Table 3. Hispanic population and segregation from whites in three major metropolitan areas by year (urbanized area)									
	San Antonio			Los Angeles			New York		
	Hispanic population	Hispanic share	D	Hispanic population	Hispanic share	D	Hispanic population	Hispanic share	D
1900	8,864	0.167	0.499	5,349	0.042	0.392	15,207	0.004	0.472
1910	22,491	0.225	0.569	16,673	0.040	0.495	21,363	0.004	0.492
1920	50,750	0.305	0.584	49,775	0.062	0.568	51,374	0.009	0.522
1930	78,846	0.323	0.604	162,760	0.084	0.666	131,121	0.017	0.563
1940	89,716	0.336	0.631	151,355	0.065	0.652	186,405	0.023	0.584
1950	151,738	0.337	0.636	259,514	0.078	0.589	398,602	0.045	0.646
1960	269,884	0.411	0.699	664,995	0.111	0.569	868,651	0.083	0.698
1970	329,162	0.409	0.635	968,167	0.140	0.551	1,218,724	0.107	0.719
1980	478,737	0.468	0.588	2,059,317	0.278	0.587	1,564,405	0.146	0.679
1990	605,573	0.494	0.556	3,339,980	0.380	0.626	2,051,161	0.186	0.681
2000	775,748	0.535	0.518	4,235,277	0.447	0.643	2,617,583	0.219	0.682
2010	1,051,688	0.568	0.471	4,675,659	0.479	0.643	3,038,153	0.248	0.652
2020	1,233,065	0.563	0.424	4,797,169	0.480	0.619	3,424,225	0.262	0.604

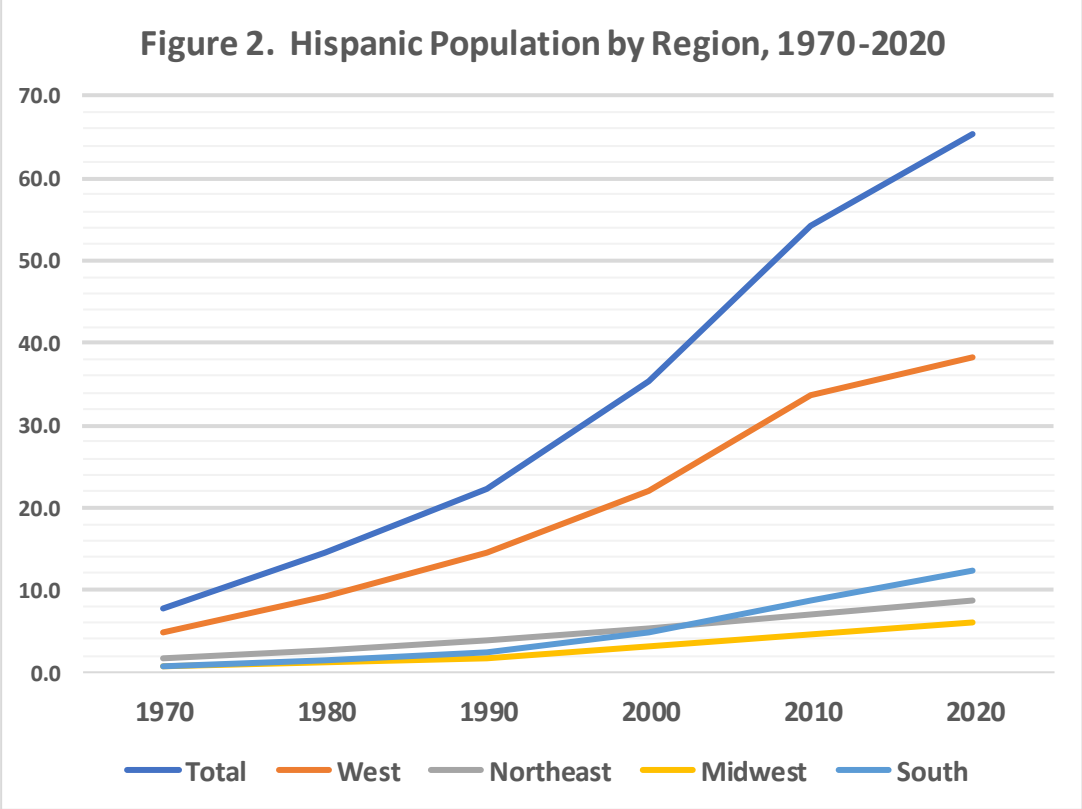
Table 4. Total, micro- and macro-segregation (D) for metros by year					
		Micro-segregation		Macro-segregation	
	Metro total	Central city	Suburbs	City/suburb	Suburban places
Total					
1900	0.426	0.427	0.431	0.034	0.264
1910	0.479	0.481	0.339	0.058	0.279
1920	0.548	0.548	0.415	0.047	0.300
1930	0.595	0.594	0.517	0.052	0.350
1940	0.583	0.587	0.488	0.075	0.283
1950	0.592	0.593	0.496	0.090	0.284
1960	0.623	0.627	0.555	0.131	0.271
1970	0.604	0.595	0.522	0.193	0.334
1980	0.542	0.548	0.446	0.184	0.355
1990	0.541	0.550	0.468	0.181	0.379
2000	0.544	0.550	0.481	0.175	0.395
2010	0.521	0.531	0.472	0.148	0.390
2020	0.483	0.490	0.439	0.141	0.372

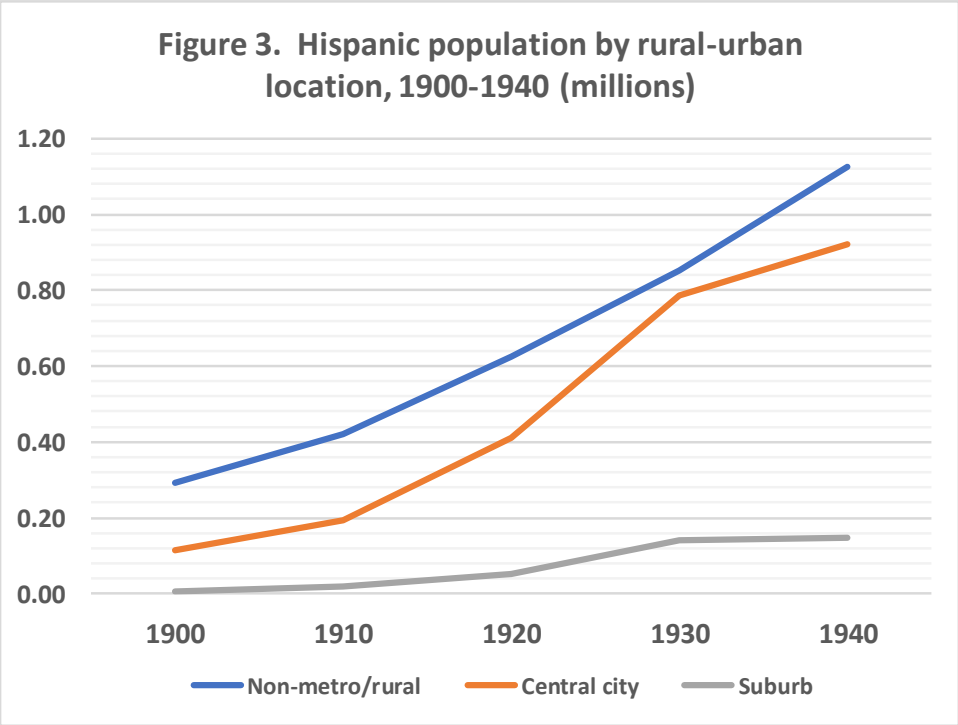
Table 5. Total, micro- and macro-segregation (D) for metros by year and region					
		Micro-segregation		Macro-segregation	
	Metro total	Central city	Suburbs	City/suburb	Suburban places
Northeast					
1900	0.530	0.531	0.508	0.037	0.268
1910	0.533	0.532	0.537	0.038	0.304
1920	0.541	0.543	0.483	0.036	0.239
1930	0.552	0.562	0.417	0.061	0.208
1940	0.556	0.561	0.393	0.064	0.165
1950	0.641	0.639	0.439	0.092	0.207
1960	0.690	0.684	0.530	0.232	0.222
1970	0.706	0.678	0.524	0.334	0.313
1980	0.652	0.626	0.437	0.362	0.358
1990	0.647	0.620	0.472	0.363	0.397
2000	0.644	0.606	0.502	0.356	0.437
2010	0.612	0.587	0.489	0.312	0.431
2020	0.564	0.547	0.452	0.272	0.400
Midwest					
1900	0.651	0.651	0.629	0.047	0.356
1910	0.660	0.658	0.640	0.047	0.315
1920	0.654	0.653	0.600	0.073	0.361
1930	0.683	0.684	0.617	0.073	0.413
1940	0.595	0.601	0.515	0.070	0.297
1950	0.645	0.647	0.569	0.103	0.323
1960	0.711	0.699	0.701	0.230	0.358
1970	0.670	0.646	0.598	0.329	0.381
1980	0.564	0.555	0.401	0.367	0.322
1990	0.552	0.539	0.426	0.356	0.350
2000	0.556	0.547	0.454	0.320	0.380
2010	0.518	0.536	0.436	0.248	0.364
2020	0.472	0.503	0.393	0.210	0.332
South					
1900	0.387	0.386	0.597	0.045	0.422
1910	0.446	0.449	0.193	0.132	0.300
1920	0.506	0.504	0.482	0.081	0.349
1930	0.559	0.545	0.486	0.087	0.371
1940	0.493	0.488	0.289	0.063	0.100
1950	0.560	0.543	0.495	0.128	0.286
1960	0.558	0.537	0.522	0.216	0.249
1970	0.550	0.456	0.496	0.289	0.355
1980	0.464	0.424	0.426	0.185	0.356
1990	0.448	0.441	0.421	0.121	0.355
2000	0.446	0.476	0.427	0.075	0.353
2010	0.456	0.478	0.440	0.059	0.351
2020	0.429	0.436	0.407	0.058	0.332
West					
1900	0.379	0.381	0.280	0.025	0.222
1910	0.459	0.463	0.261	0.038	0.250
1920	0.544	0.544	0.349	0.042	0.309
1930	0.596	0.593	0.541	0.040	0.393
1940	0.600	0.603	0.550	0.083	0.356
1950	0.568	0.571	0.510	0.085	0.312
1960	0.589	0.601	0.549	0.071	0.336
1970	0.556	0.568	0.514	0.097	0.380
1980	0.511	0.539	0.446	0.098	0.368
1990	0.523	0.549	0.479	0.115	0.381
2000	0.535	0.550	0.491	0.127	0.394
2010	0.515	0.530	0.482	0.115	0.394
2020	0.476	0.489	0.452	0.112	0.377

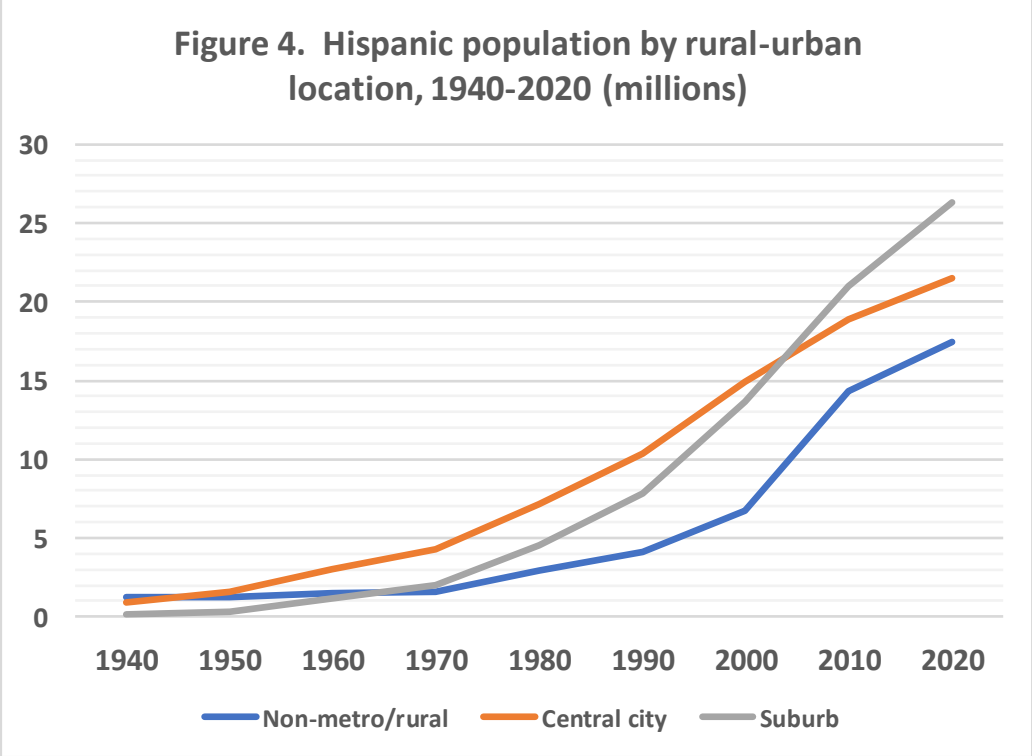
Table 6. Decomposition of segregation (H) by year					
		Micro-segregation shares		Macro-segregation shares	
	Metro H	Central city	Suburbs	City/suburb	Suburban places
1900	0.132	0.945	0.030	0.008	0.017
1910	0.196	0.925	0.030	0.025	0.020
1920	0.262	0.897	0.052	0.015	0.036
1930	0.319	0.842	0.076	0.016	0.065
1940	0.312	0.860	0.085	0.018	0.037
1950	0.322	0.815	0.104	0.030	0.051
1960	0.373	0.688	0.154	0.054	0.104
1970	0.349	0.615	0.131	0.109	0.145
1980	0.301	0.552	0.109	0.123	0.217
1990	0.307	0.498	0.130	0.119	0.253
2000	0.305	0.436	0.152	0.118	0.293
2010	0.282	0.395	0.175	0.101	0.329
2020	0.244	0.384	0.167	0.098	0.351

Table 7. Decomposition of segregation (H) by year and region					
		Micro-segregation shares		Macro-segregation shares	
	Metro H	Central city	Suburbs	City/suburb	Suburban places
Northeast					
1900	0.132	0.876	0.084	0.012	0.028
1910	0.135	0.850	0.099	0.011	0.040
1920	0.178	0.860	0.092	0.010	0.038
1930	0.260	0.875	0.074	0.016	0.035
1940	0.280	0.888	0.073	0.019	0.020
1950	0.353	0.903	0.047	0.036	0.013
1960	0.419	0.795	0.072	0.110	0.022
1970	0.458	0.707	0.060	0.187	0.047
1980	0.417	0.621	0.051	0.238	0.090
1990	0.423	0.571	0.061	0.245	0.123
2000	0.416	0.500	0.070	0.255	0.174
2010	0.381	0.466	0.079	0.237	0.218
2020	0.331	0.441	0.081	0.229	0.249
Midwest					
1900	0.162	0.913	0.050	0.015	0.022
1910	0.188	0.903	0.062	0.012	0.023
1920	0.242	0.879	0.068	0.021	0.032
1930	0.329	0.876	0.074	0.018	0.032
1940	0.267	0.878	0.081	0.015	0.025
1950	0.311	0.848	0.095	0.023	0.033
1960	0.370	0.714	0.156	0.073	0.056
1970	0.352	0.640	0.127	0.160	0.073
1980	0.300	0.541	0.094	0.265	0.099
1990	0.305	0.469	0.110	0.276	0.145
2000	0.310	0.401	0.116	0.255	0.228
2010	0.280	0.380	0.143	0.201	0.276
2020	0.240	0.390	0.129	0.188	0.293
South					
1900	0.110	0.989	0.005	0.003	0.003
1910	0.197	0.895	0.006	0.099	0.001
1920	0.246	0.878	0.027	0.031	0.064
1930	0.304	0.915	0.011	0.067	0.006
1940	0.227	0.931	0.025	0.036	0.008
1950	0.270	0.840	0.055	0.086	0.019
1960	0.248	0.569	0.218	0.146	0.067
1970	0.272	0.337	0.206	0.257	0.200
1980	0.220	0.282	0.176	0.160	0.382
1990	0.202	0.209	0.213	0.089	0.489
2000	0.194	0.212	0.243	0.040	0.505
2010	0.208	0.214	0.272	0.026	0.488
2020	0.189	0.239	0.245	0.033	0.483
West					
1900	0.137	0.960	0.016	0.007	0.017
1910	0.212	0.954	0.016	0.011	0.020
1920	0.288	0.910	0.044	0.014	0.032
1930	0.337	0.821	0.084	0.012	0.084
1940	0.339	0.841	0.095	0.017	0.047
1950	0.315	0.774	0.131	0.024	0.071
1960	0.362	0.650	0.182	0.022	0.146
1970	0.309	0.608	0.154	0.046	0.192
1980	0.274	0.572	0.120	0.057	0.251
1990	0.290	0.528	0.139	0.067	0.266
2000	0.297	0.469	0.161	0.078	0.292
2010	0.277	0.426	0.179	0.070	0.325
2020	0.239	0.412	0.172	0.069	0.346


Figure 1. Hispanic Population by Region, 1900-1970 (millions)
9
8
7
6
5
4
3
2
1
0
1900
1910
1920
1930
1940
1950
1960
1970
Total
West
Northeast
Midwest
South


Figure 2. Hispanic Population by Region, 1970-2020
70.0
60.0
50.0
40.0
30.0
20.0
10.0
0.0
1970
1980
1990
2000
2010
2020
Total
West
Northeast
Midwest
South


Figure 3. Hispanic population by rural-urban location, 1900-1940 (millions)
1.20
1.00
0.80
0.60
0.40
0.20
0.00
1900
1910
1920
1930
1940
Non-metro/rural
Central city
Suburb


Figure 4. Hispanic population by rural-urban location, 1940-2020 (millions)
30
25
20
15
10
5
0
1940
1950
1960
1970
1980
1990
2000
2010
2020
Non-metro/rural
Central city
Suburb

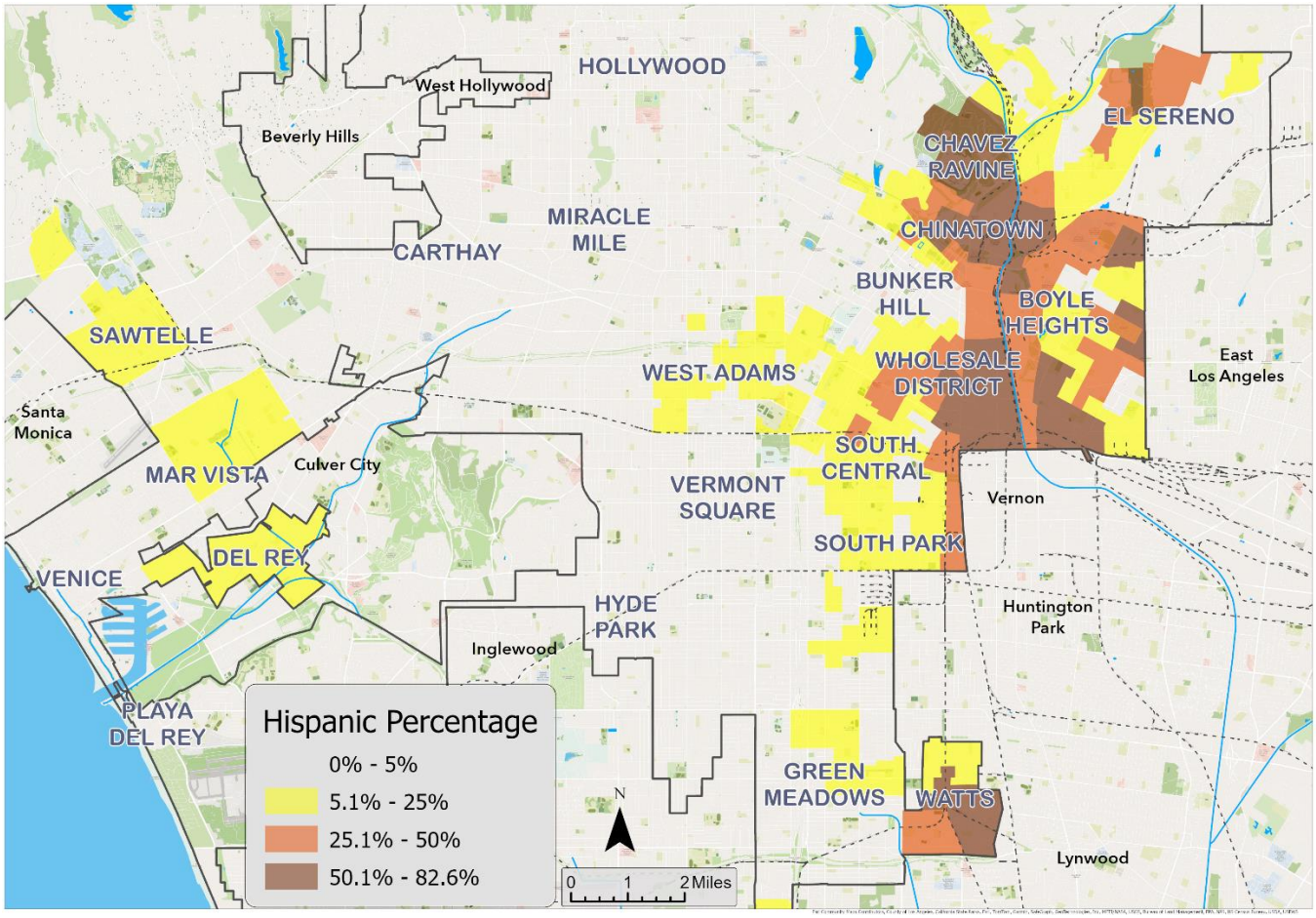


Figure 5. Hispanic Population Concentrations in Los Angeles, 1930

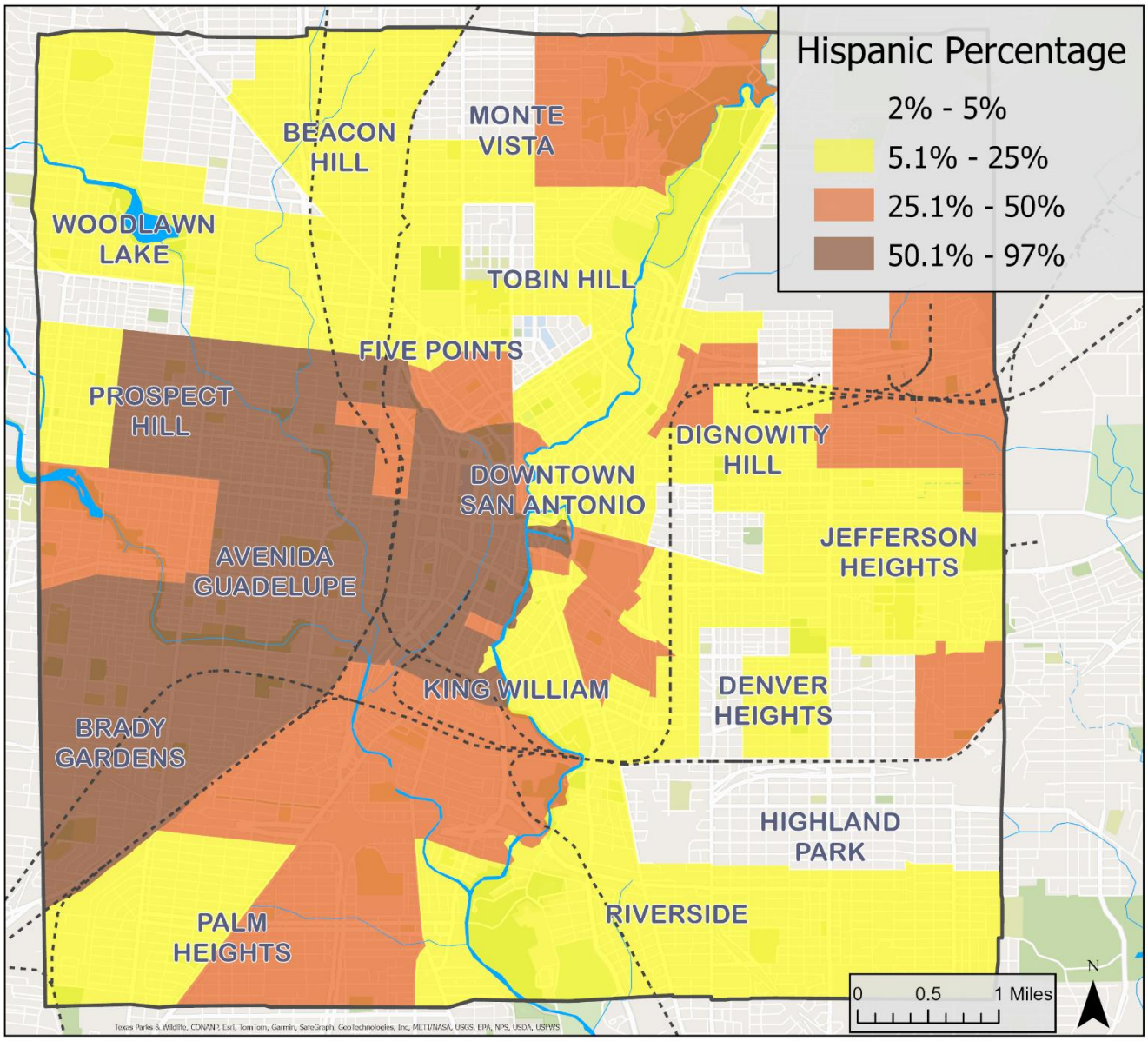


Figure 6. Hispanic population concentrations in San Antonio, 1930

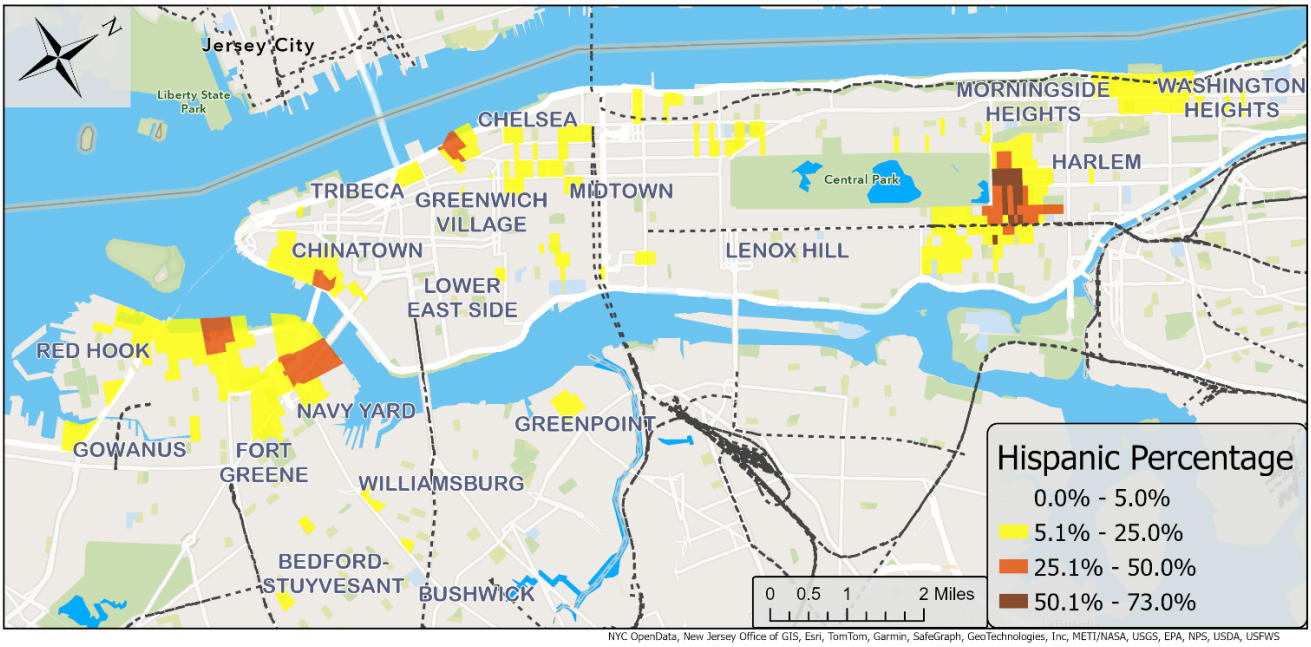


Figure 7. Hispanic population concentrations in New York City, 1930

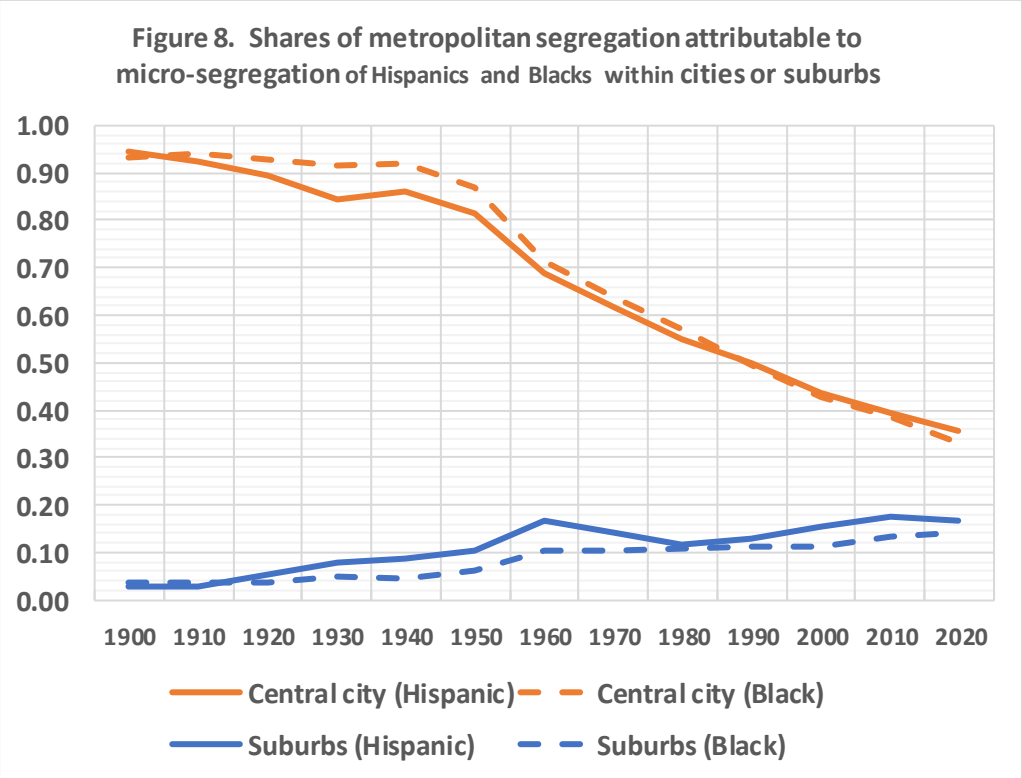

Figure 8. Shares of metropolitan segregation attributable to micro-segregation of Hispanics and Blacks within cities or suburbs
1.00
0.90
0.80
0.70
0.60
0.50
0.40
0.30
0.20
0.10
0.00
1900 1910 1920 1930 1940 1950 1960 1970 1980 1990 2000 2010 2020
Central city (Hispanic)
Central city (Black)
Suburbs (Hispanic)
Suburbs (Black)

Figure 9. Shares of metropolitan segregation attributable to macro-segregation of Hispanics and Blacks between cities and suburbs or among suburban places

